An LLM-driven multi-agent simulation framework for quantitative analysis of narrative voice shifts in literary texts

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ABSTRACT

Narratological accounts of first- and third-person narration rely mainly on interpretation and are difficult to test under controlled conditions. We present a large language model (LLM)-driven multi-agent simulation framework that makes narrative voice an experimental variable. A Director Agent extracts the characters and dialogue of a literary excerpt and enforces the mode in which every turn is rendered (first-person direct speech, third-person narration, or no instruction), while Actor Agents with a sliding-window memory generate the dialogue and a seeded, addressee-aware policy selects the next speaker. We evaluated the framework on six excerpts by six authors that differ in genre and narrative structure, with three open-weight LLMs and five random seeds (90 sessions per mode), using paired statistical tests, a no-instruction control, a rule-based transposition baseline, ablations of mode enforcement, memory and speaker selection, and two LLM judges. The framework controlled narrative voice reliably (0.0% residual mode violations). In our simulations, third-person narration used longer and less frequent content words than first-person speech ($|d_z| = 0.90$) and was affectively more neutral (emotional intensity, $|d_z| = 0.45$), effects that pronoun substitution does not explain, whereas lexicon-based subjectivity did not differ between the modes ($|d_z| = 0.03$). A distributional consistency measure did not distinguish characters, but speaker attribution showed that character identity was partially preserved across modes (balanced accuracy 0.63 across modes vs. 0.84 within a mode; chance 0.38). Ablations showed that Director enforcement and actor memory improve compliance with the narrative mode, that addressee-aware speaker selection makes turns respond to the addressed character, and that a single prompt cannot control narrative voice turn by turn; the two LLM judges recognized the speakers of masked turns equally well in both modes but disagreed on perceived subjectivity. Of three attempts to preserve the characters' voice in third-person narration, a speak-then-narrate variant, in which the Director narrates the Actors' own speech in free indirect style, raised cross-mode attribution to 0.73 and removed most of the register shift, which indicates that the shift arises from narratorial paraphrase, although the LLM judges, and three experts in a small blinded evaluation, rated these sessions as less coherent; the experts identified the speakers of masked turns well above chance in all modes. These results support the use of multi-agent LLM simulations as controllable instruments for computational narratology, and they show that effects observed in a single run on a single text do not necessarily generalize.

Project page: https://yanlibengbu.github.io/narrative-voice-sim/
Code and data: https://github.com/YanLiBengbu/narrative-voice-sim

INTRODUCTION

The analysis of narrative perspective has been a core theme in narratology since its formalization in structuralist theory. Shifts between first-person and third-person narration shape how readers perceive who speaks, whose perceptions are rendered, and how much a character's subjectivity is foregrounded (Onega and Landa, 1996; Bal, 2009). Classical narratologists emphasized close reading and interpretive frameworks (Baroni and Paschoud, 2021). Such approaches yield rich interpretations but are difficult to

replicate and to test empirically. With the advent of computational methods, literary scholars have turned toward quantitative analysis, seeking systematic evidence for narratological phenomena (Gius and Vauth, 2022; Hatavara et al., 2024; Piper et al., 2021).

In digital literary studies, computational approaches have been applied to authorship attribution (He et al., 2024), stylistic analysis (Herrmann et al., 2021; Khafaga and Shaalan, 2022), the detection of narrative point of view and diegesis (Eisenberg and Finlayson, 2016), the quantification of free indirect discourse (Brooke et al., 2017), and quotation attribution in novels (Vishnubhotla et al., 2022). Most of these methods classify or describe existing texts; they leave little room for controlled experiments in which a single narratological variable is varied while everything else is held constant. Large language models (LLMs) now make such experiments feasible, because they can extract character attributes from a passage and generate role-specific dialogue (Yu et al., 2025; Wang et al., 2024; Zhang et al., 2025a; Shao et al., 2023).

LLMs have also been used as interacting agents that take on distinct roles (Li et al., 2024; Sun et al., 2025; De Zarzà et al., 2023; Park et al., 2023), for example to model social dynamics, collaborative planning and conversational reasoning (Wang, 2025; Rahimi et al., 2025; Zhai et al., 2025). For literary research, such systems make it possible to ask how the narrative form in which a scene is rendered changes the affective and stylistic profile of the resulting text. However, computational narratology has rarely combined multi-agent simulation with explicit control over narrative voice (Cai et al., 2024; Zhang et al., 2025b), which leaves a gap between interpretive theory and empirical testing.

In this work, we propose an LLM-driven multi-agent simulation framework for studying narrative voice shifts under controlled conditions. A Director Agent extracts the characters and dialogue of a literary excerpt and enforces the narrative mode in which every turn is rendered: (i) first-person direct speech in the character's own voice, (ii) third-person narration in which an external narrator reports the character's turn, or (iii) a control condition without any perspective instruction. Actor Agents with a bounded dialogue memory generate the turns, and a seeded speaker-selection policy decides who speaks next. The generated dialogues are then analyzed with sentiment, subjectivity, pronoun, lexical and character-consistency measures. We stress that the system does not reproduce the source novel: it generates new dialogue conditioned on a short excerpt, and all quantitative results describe these generated dialogues. Our findings therefore characterize how LLM agents realize narrative-voice instructions; they can support, but not establish, narratological hypotheses about human-authored narrative.

To assess the robustness and generality of the results, we evaluate the framework on six excerpts by six authors, covering different genres and narrative structures, with three open-weight LLMs, five random seeds, paired statistical tests with confidence intervals, a neutral-instruction control, a rule-based transposition baseline, ablations of the main components, and an independent evaluation by LLM judges. The main contributions are as follows:

- A multi-agent simulation framework in which a Director Agent controls narrative voice while Actor Agents with a sliding-window memory and a seeded, addressee-aware speaker-selection policy generate role-specific dialogue. The code, prompts, generated dialogues and analysis scripts are openly released.

- A controlled evaluation protocol for narrative-voice simulation: paired comparisons across texts, models and seeds, a no-instruction control and a rule-based transposition baseline that separate the direct effect of the mode instruction from changes that go beyond pronoun substitution.

- A test of character identity across narrative modes that calibrates a distributional (Jensen–Shannon) consistency measure against a between-character baseline, so that "stability" is tested rather than assumed, and complements it with cross-mode speaker attribution.

- Ablation studies that isolate the contributions of narrative control, actor memory and speaker selection, a single-prompt baseline, and an LLM-judge evaluation that is compared with the automatic measures.

The remainder of this paper is organized as follows. The Related Work section clarifies the narratological terms used in this study and reviews empirical, computational and LLM-based work on perspective and role play. The Methodology section describes the framework, the measures and the statistical procedures. The Experiments section reports the results on six excerpts, including ablations and

the LLM-judge evaluation. The Discussion section interprets the findings and their limitations, and the last section concludes.

1 RELATED WORK

1.1 Narrative voice, perspective and focalization

Narratology distinguishes between two questions that the everyday term "point of view" tends to merge. *Voice* concerns who narrates: Genette describes the narrator's relation to the story as homodiegetic, when the narrator is a character in the story, or heterodiegetic, when the narrator is absent from it (Genette, 1980). *Focalization* concerns whose perception orients the narrative, independently of who narrates; it may be zero (unrestricted), internal (restricted to a character's perceptions) or external (Genette, 1980; Bal, 2009; Niederhoff, 2013). *Narrative perspective* is often used as an umbrella term for both dimensions (Niederhoff, 2013; Fludernik, 2009). Grammatical person is the most visible marker of voice, but it does not determine focalization: a third-person narrative can be internally focalized through a character, as in free indirect discourse (Brooke et al., 2017).

In this paper, the experimental variable is narrative voice in a deliberately narrow sense: the grammatical person and the narratorial mediation with which a character's turn is rendered. In the first-person mode, the character's turn is rendered as unmediated direct speech in the character's own voice; in the third-person mode, a heterodiegetic narrator reports the turn in the third person. We do not manipulate focalization directly, although the third-person mode allows the narrator to mention the character's actions or inner states. When we use "perspective" below, we refer to this voice manipulation.

1.2 Empirical and computational studies of narrative perspective

Reader-response experiments show that grammatical person affects how narratives are processed. Pronouns modulate the perspective that readers adopt when they mentally simulate described events (Brunyé et al., 2009), and literary short stories presented with first-person pronouns produced higher immersion, mainly through transportation and mental imagery, than the same stories with third-person pronouns, whereas appreciation was unaffected (Hartung et al., 2016). On the computational side, point of view and diegesis can be identified automatically with high accuracy, chiefly from pronoun features (Eisenberg and Finlayson, 2016), lexical-style models have been used to quantify free indirect discourse (Brooke et al., 2017), and annotated corpora support quotation and speaker attribution in novels (Vishnubhotla et al., 2022). Piper et al. (2021) argue that computational work on narrative should be connected more closely with narrative theory. These studies observe or classify existing texts; they do not vary narrative voice experimentally while holding the content of a scene constant, which is the aim of the present framework.

1.3 Agent-Based Modeling in Narrative Contexts

The use of computational agents to simulate narrative dynamics has roots in interactive storytelling and computational narratology. Early systems such as Façade (Mateas and Stern, 2003) modeled characters as autonomous agents whose behavior responds to player interaction in real time. Cavazza et al. (2002) and Si et al. (2005) extended this paradigm by developing multi-agent systems where character goals dynamically shape story progression. Riedl and Young (2010) proposed narrative planning frameworks that balance plot coherence with character autonomy, while Swartjes and Theune (2006) introduced emergent narrative models where stories arise organically from agent interactions rather than pre-scripted sequences. Porteous and Cavazza (2009) further refined control mechanisms through planning trajectories, and Magerko et al. (2009) studied cognition in theatrical improvisation to inform agent-based models of improvised performance. However, these traditional systems relied on hand-crafted rules and symbolic planning, limiting linguistic flexibility and scalability. Our work extends this tradition by leveraging large language models to enable naturalistic dialogue generation, complex character modeling through prompt engineering, and systematic comparison of narrative perspectives, while preserving the core principle of simulating narrative through autonomous agent interactions.

1.4 LLM-based Role Play and Multi-Agent Systems

Recent advances in large language models (LLMs) have enabled the development of multi-agent frameworks, where autonomous agents interact to simulate complex social and linguistic dynamics. Generative agents with memory and reflection can simulate believable everyday behavior in a sandbox world (Park et al., 2023), and role play has been proposed as a framework for understanding what dialogue agents

do (Shanahan et al., 2023). Dedicated methods train or evaluate LLMs for character role play and plot progression (Shao et al., 2023; Yu et al., 2025; Wang et al., 2024; Zhang et al., 2025a). Jin et al. (2024) propose DeCoAgent, a decentralized collaboration framework that integrates LLM agents with blockchain smart contracts for coordination in open environments. Jiang et al. (2024) introduce CommLLM, a multi-agent architecture that leverages natural language interactions to enhance spectrum management and routing efficiency. Guo et al. (2024) provide a comprehensive survey of LLM-based multi-agent systems that identifies open issues such as benchmarking. LLMs are also increasingly used as evaluators of generated text; their ratings correlate with expert judgements in several tasks, but they are subject to biases such as position and self-preference effects (Zheng et al., 2023; Chiang and Lee, 2023). We therefore use LLM judges only as a complement to automatic measures and not as a substitute for human evaluation. Our framework positions multi-agent LLM systems not as content generators but as experimental instruments for the controlled analysis of narrative voice.

2 METHODOLOGY

2.1 System Framework

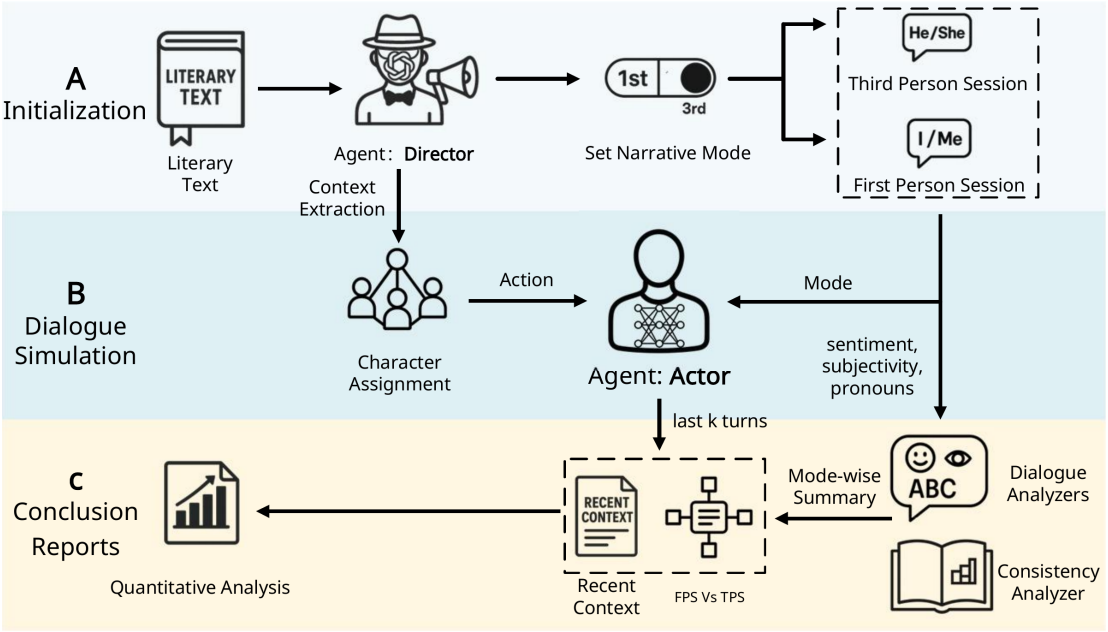


Figure 1. Overall architecture of the proposed LLM-driven multi-agent simulation framework. The system consists of role extraction, dialogue simulation under different narrative modes, multi-dimensional dialogue analysis, and comparative reporting.

The proposed system adopts an LLM-driven multi-agent framework to simulate and analyze narrative voice shifts in literary texts. As illustrated in Fig. 1, the framework is organized into four main modules: role extraction, dialogue simulation, dialogue analysis, and comparative reporting. The system starts by taking a literary excerpt as input and initializes the environment through a *Director Agent*, which is responsible for character assignment, context extraction, and narrative mode configuration. Based on the extracted speaker–listener pairs and character traits, a set of *Actor Agents* is instantiated, each bound to a specific literary character. The Director also controls the narrative mode of the session (first person, third person or the no-instruction control), so that the same scene can be compared across modes. The excerpt is used solely to initialize agents and context; all subsequent analysis is conducted on the newly generated dialogues, not on the source text. The Actor Agents condition their turns on their role cards, the scene context and the most recent turns of the dialogue. The Director checks every generated turn against the selected mode and has non-compliant turns regenerated or rewritten (see below). The generated dialogues are then processed by the *Dialogue Analyzers*, which compute utterance- and session-level measures, and by a *Vocabulary Consistency Analyzer*, which compares character-specific lexical distributions across

modes. Finally, results are aggregated into mode-wise summaries, statistical tests and reports.

2.2 Dialogue Simulation and Narrative Modes

Scene initialization. The Director Agent first extracts the direct-speech turns of the excerpt as a sequence of {speaker, addressees, text} records and then writes a role card for every character (name, gender, personality, emotional baseline in $[-1,1]$, speech style, background and relationships) together with a two- to three-sentence scene context. Because speaker labels produced by LLMs are often inconsistent (e.g., "she", "the lady" and "Miss Havisham" for the same person), the extracted labels are mapped to a manually verified cast list with aliases for each excerpt; turns whose speaker cannot be mapped are discarded. The accuracy of the automatic extraction is evaluated separately against manually attributed quotations (see Experiments). Scene initialization is performed once per excerpt and model with temperature 0, and the same role cards and opening turns are shared by all modes and seeds, so that the narrative mode is the only factor that differs between paired sessions.

Narrative modes. In the *first-person* mode, each turn is rendered as the character's own direct speech, with self-reference through first-person pronouns and without narratorial framing. In the *third-person* mode, each turn is rendered by an external (heterodiegetic) narrator who reports what the character says, may mention actions or inner states, refers to the character by name or by a third-person pronoun, and uses no quotation marks; in this mode the opening turns of the excerpt are also rewritten into reported narration by the Director. In the *neutral* (no-instruction) control, the prompt contains no perspective instruction at all. The mode instructions are given verbatim in the Appendix.

Mode enforcement. After each turn, the Director applies a rule-based compliance check. A third-person turn violates the mode if it contains quotation marks or first- or second-person pronouns, or if it does not refer to the speaker by name or by a third-person pronoun; a first-person turn violates the mode if it describes the speaker in the third person with a reporting verb. A non-compliant turn is first regenerated by the Actor with an explicit hint; if the second attempt still fails, the Director rewrites the turn into the required form. For every turn we record whether it was compliant at the first attempt, regenerated, rewritten by the Director, or still non-compliant, so that the effect of enforcement can be measured (see the ablation on enforcement).

Actor Agents and memory. Each Actor Agent receives its role card, the scene context, the names of the other characters, the last k turns of the dialogue (sliding-window memory, $k = 5$ by default) and the mode instruction, and returns a JSON object containing the intention (*speak* or *silent*), the content of the turn and its addressees.

Speaker selection. The next speaker is sampled from a softmax over addressee-aware scores computed from the truncated history H'. For character c_i with g_i turns since its last turn,

$$s_i = \alpha \mathbb{1}[c_i \in A_{t-1}] - \beta \mathbb{1}[c_i = c_{t-1}] + \gamma \frac{\min(g_i, |\mathscr{C}|)}{|\mathscr{C}|}, \qquad p_i = \frac{\exp(s_i/\tau)}{\sum_j \exp(s_j/\tau)}, \tag{1}$$

where A_{t-1} and c_{t-1} are the addressees and the speaker of the previous turn, $\alpha = 2.0$, $\beta = 1.5$, $\gamma = 1.0$ and $\tau = 0.7$. The scores thus favor characters who were just addressed, penalize immediate self-succession, and give characters who have not spoken recently a chance to take the floor. Sampling uses a random number generator initialized with the session seed. In the ablations, this policy is replaced by seeded uniform sampling (the policy of an earlier implementation) and by a fixed round-robin order.

Algorithm 1 summarizes the generation procedure. Every LLM call uses a fixed seed derived from the session seed and the turn index; retries use further derived seeds. JSON outputs are requested with constrained (JSON-mode) decoding and parsed with a deterministic repair routine (quote normalization, newline escaping, trailing-comma removal and bracket balancing) under a fixed retry budget of three attempts. All raw LLM responses are cached, so that every reported number can be regenerated from the released outputs.

2.3 Quantitative Analysis Methods

Figure 2 shows the analysis pipeline. We distinguish three groups of measures.

Manipulation checks. The share of first-person pronouns among first- and third-person pronouns (*first-person ratio*) and the number of self-references by name are direct consequences of the mode instruction. They verify that the manipulation worked but are not treated as findings.

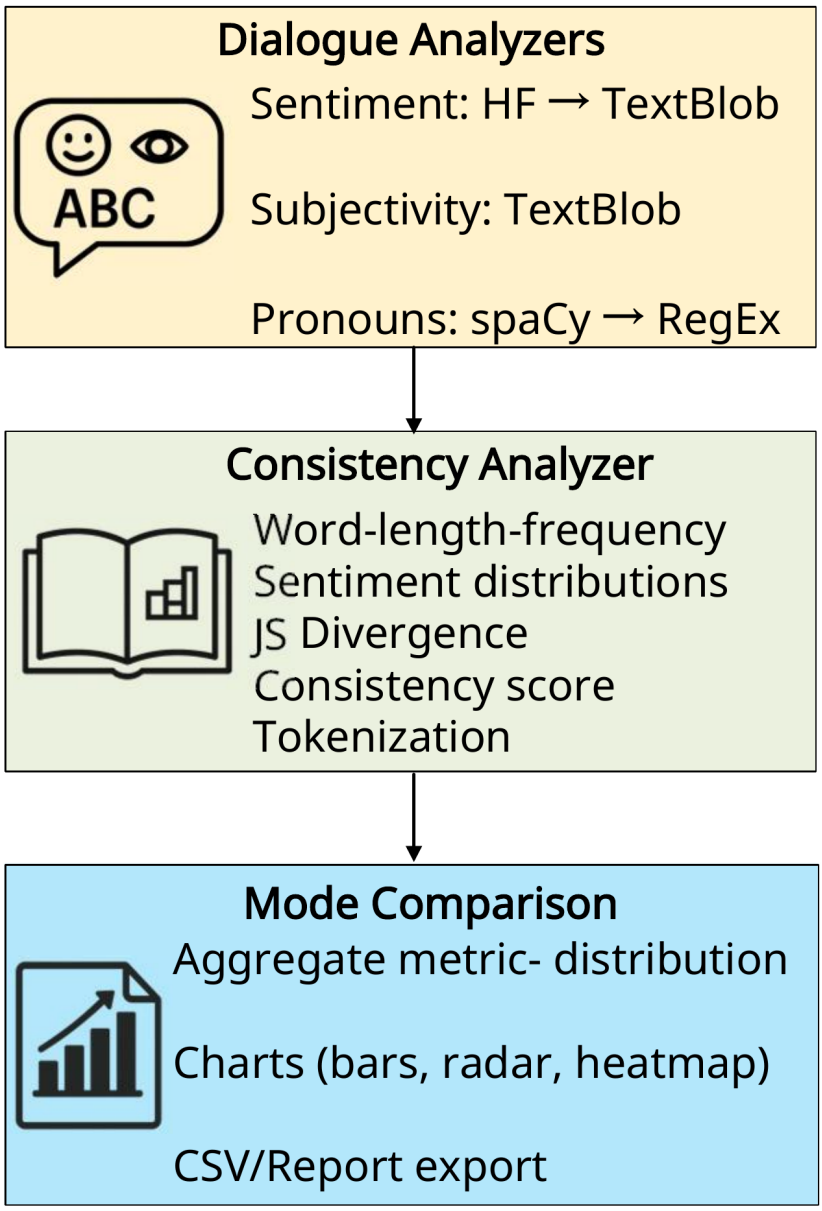


Figure 2. Software-level analysis pipeline. Dialogue analyzers capture sentiment, subjectivity, and pronoun statistics, while the consistency analyzer evaluates distributional features and outputs comparative metrics.

Algorithm 1 Multi-agent dialogue generation with narrative-mode enforcement and reproducibility control

Input: scene (role cards, context, opening turns H_0), mode m, seed s, memory k, maximum turns $T_{\max}$
Output: dialogue $D = \{d_1, \ldots, d_T\}$
Initialize RNG(s), $H \leftarrow H_0$, $D \leftarrow \emptyset$
while $|D| < T_{\max}$ **and** fewer than 4 consecutive silent turns **do**
  $H' \leftarrow$ last k turns of H {sliding-window memory}
  compute s_i for all $c_i \in \mathscr{C}$ (Eq. 1); $c^* \sim \text{softmax}(s/\tau)$
  $r \leftarrow \text{Actor}_{c^*}(\text{card}_{c^*}, \text{context}, H', m;\ \text{seed } s_t)$ {JSON output}
  if r is a spoken turn **and** violates mode m **then**
    regenerate with a hint; if still violating, Director rewrites r into mode m
  end if
  $D \leftarrow D \cup \{r\}$; $H \leftarrow H \cup \{r\}$
end while
return D

Outcome measures. Sentiment is measured at the utterance level with a DistilBERT classifier fine-tuned on SST-2 (Sanh et al., 2019) (signed score $p_{\text{pos}} - p_{\text{neg}}$), with TextBlob polarity (Loria, 2020) and with VADER (Hutto and Gilbert, 2014); *emotional intensity* is the absolute TextBlob polarity. Subjectivity is the TextBlob subjectivity score. Utterance length is the number of word tokens. To prevent the trivial substitution of "I" by a character name from driving the lexical measures, word length and word frequency are computed on *content words* only, i.e., alphabetic tokens that are not stop words, pronouns, proper nouns or parts of character names (spaCy tokenization and tagging; Honnibal et al., 2020). Word frequency is the mean Zipf frequency of the content words according to the `wordfreq` lexicon (Speer, 2022), and the *rare-word rate* is the share of content words with Zipf frequency below 3. Lexical diversity is measured with the length-robust moving-average type–token ratio (MATTR, window 50; Covington and McFall, 2010) and the measure of textual lexical diversity (MTLD; McCarthy and Jarvis, 2010). We use these measures instead of length-based frequency bins and entropy-based diversity scores, which are sensitive to text length and do not use corpus frequencies.

Interaction measures. Turn-taking balance is the normalized entropy of the distribution of turns over characters (1 = perfectly balanced); addressee responsiveness is the share of turns whose speaker was addressed in the previous turn; self-succession is the share of consecutive turns by the same speaker; and repetition is one minus the proportion of distinct word trigrams in a session.

Character consistency. For a character c and mode m, we pool the content words and utterance-level sentiment classes over all seeds and compute three distributions: word length P_{len}, Zipf-frequency band P_{freq} (bands $< 2, 2\text{–}3, \ldots, \geq 6$) and sentiment class P_{sent} (positive, neutral, negative, threshold ± 0.05). The Jensen–Shannon divergence (Lin, 1991)

$$\text{JS}(P \,\|\, Q) = \tfrac{1}{2}\text{KL}(P \,\|\, M) + \tfrac{1}{2}\text{KL}(Q \,\|\, M), \qquad M = \tfrac{1}{2}(P+Q), \tag{2}$$

with base-2 logarithms lies in $[0,1]$, and the composite consistency score is

$$S(P,Q) = 1 - \left(0.3\,\text{JS}_{\text{len}} + 0.4\,\text{JS}_{\text{freq}} + 0.3\,\text{JS}_{\text{sent}}\right). \tag{3}$$

We also report the divergence of content-word unigram distributions (JS_{lex}). Because divergence estimates depend on sample size, both distributions are subsampled to the same number of tokens (120 content words and 8 utterances, 20 draws). Crucially, a character's *within-character* consistency across modes, $S(P_{c,\text{first}}, P_{c,\text{third}})$, is compared with the *between-character* consistency of the same character with the other characters of the scene within a mode. Character-specific traits are considered preserved only if the within-character consistency exceeds the between-character baseline.

Speaker attribution. As a more sensitive test of character identity, we train, separately for every excerpt–model cell, a logistic-regression classifier (scikit-learn, balanced class weights) that predicts the speaker of a turn from TF-IDF weighted content-word unigrams and bigrams (pronouns and character names removed) or, alternatively, from the frequencies of 96 non-pronoun function words. Within-mode accuracy is estimated with leave-one-seed-out cross-validation; cross-mode accuracy is obtained by

training on all first-person turns and testing on all third-person turns and vice versa. Characters with fewer than ten turns are omitted. We report balanced accuracy, compare it with chance ($1/K$ for K characters) and with the within-mode accuracy across the 18 cells (Wilcoxon signed-rank tests).

2.4 Statistical procedures

The unit of analysis is the session: utterance-level values are first averaged within each session to avoid pseudo-replication. Sessions that share the excerpt, the model and the seed form a block, and modes are compared within blocks. For each measure and pair of modes we report the mean paired difference with a 95% bootstrap confidence interval (10,000 resamples of blocks; Efron and Tibshirani, 1993), the two-sided Wilcoxon signed-rank test (Wilcoxon, 1945), Cohen's d_z and the matched-pairs rank-biserial correlation r_{rb}. P-values are adjusted with the Holm procedure within each family of comparisons (Holm, 1979). As a robustness check, we fit linear mixed models with mode and generator model as fixed effects and a random intercept for the excerpt. To assess generalization, we also report in how many of the 18 excerpt–model cells the mean difference has the same sign. All tests are two-sided with $\alpha = 0.05$.

2.5 LLM-judge evaluation

As a scalable complement to the automatic measures, two judge models, `phi4:14b` (Abdin et al., 2024), which comes from a developer different from those of all three generators, and `qwen3.5:9b` (Qwen Team, 2026), which belongs to the same model family as one generator (Qwen2.5), evaluated the generated dialogues at temperature 0. In the session-level task, each judge rated every session on 1–5 scales for coherence, character consistency, scene fidelity, subjectivity and emotional intensity, and classified the realized narrative form. Judges saw the excerpt metadata, the role cards and the dialogue, but not the generating model or the experimental condition. In the speaker-identification task, four randomly sampled turns per session (seeds 0–2) were shown with all character names replaced by a placeholder and gendered pronouns neutralized; the judge had to identify the speaker among the scene's characters and rate the turn's subjectivity. Accuracy above chance in both modes indicates that character identity is recognizable independently of the narrative mode. Agreement between judges is quantified with Krippendorff's α (Hayes and Krippendorff, 2007). A smaller blinded evaluation by literary experts on a subset of the same sessions and turns is described in subsection 3.11.

2.6 Computing infrastructure

All experiments were run on a workstation with Ubuntu 24.04.5 LTS, an NVIDIA GeForce RTX 4070 Ti SUPER GPU (16 GB), 24 CPU threads and 30 GB of RAM. LLMs were served locally with Ollama 0.40.3 (Ollama, 2026) using 4-bit quantized weights. The analysis used Python 3.12 with spaCy 3.8 (`en_core_web_sm`), TextBlob 0.20, NLTK 3.10 (VADER), Transformers 5.17, wordfreq 3, SciPy 1.17, statsmodels 0.15, scikit-learn 1.9 and krippendorff 0.9.

3 EXPERIMENTS

3.1 Experimental Setup

Texts. To test whether the observed effects generalize beyond a single text, we use six dialogue-rich excerpts by six authors that differ in genre, period and narrative structure (Table 1). In addition to a scene from *The Good Earth* (Buck, 1931), we include Darcy's first proposal from *Pride and Prejudice* (Austen, 1813), Pip's first meeting with Miss Havisham from *Great Expectations* (Dickens, 1861), the visit of the masked King in "A Scandal in Bohemia" (Doyle, 1892), Lady Bracknell's interview of Jack in *The Importance of Being Earnest* (Wilde, 1899), and the confrontation between Nikhil and Sandip in *The Home and the World* (Tagore, 1919). The selection covers heterodiegetic third-person narration, free indirect discourse, autodiegetic retrospective narration, a homodiegetic witness narrator, the dramatic mode without a narrator, and alternating first-person narrators; it also includes two texts with non-Western settings. The five additional texts are in the public domain and were taken from Project Gutenberg. For every excerpt we compiled the cast with name aliases and attributed every quotation to its speaker manually; these annotations are used to verify the cast and to evaluate the Director's extraction.

Models and parameters. Three open-weight instruction-tuned LLMs from different developers serve as generators: Llama 3.1 8B (Llama Team, AI @ Meta, 2024), Qwen2.5 14B (Qwen Team, 2024) and Gemma 3 12B (Gemma Team, 2025). All three are served locally by Ollama with 4-bit quantization, so

Table 1. Literary excerpts used in the experiments. Cast: characters represented by Actor Agents; Quotations: manually attributed direct-speech segments.

Excerpt	Source	Genre	Narrative structure	Words	Cast	Quotations
The Good Earth	Buck (1931), ch. 26	Realist family novel	Heterodiegetic, third person	901	4	11
Pride and Prejudice	Austen (1813), ch. 34	Novel of manners	Heterodiegetic, free indirect discourse	1063	2	14
Great Expectations	Dickens (1861), ch. 8	Bildungsroman	Autodiegetic, retrospective first person	531	2	24
A Scandal in Bohemia	Doyle (1891), part I	Detective story	Homodiegetic witness narrator	657	3	20
The Importance of Being Earnest	Wilde (1895), act I	Comic drama	No narrator (dramatic mode)	671	3	25
The Home and the World	Tagore (1916; tr. 1919), ch. 10	Political novel	Alternating first-person narrators	441	3	12

that the results do not depend on a commercial API. The same model plays the Director and all Actors within a session. Table 2 lists the configuration.

Table 2. Experimental parameters and configurations.

Parameter	**Value**
Generator LLMs	`llama3.1:8b`, `qwen2.5:14b`, `gemma3:12b` (Ollama 0.40.3, Q4_K_M)
Judge LLMs	`phi4:14b`, `qwen3.5:9b-q4_K_M` (temperature 0)
Narrative modes	first person, third person, neutral (no instruction); improvement experiments: voice-preserving third person, speak-then-narrate
Maximum dialogue turns $T_{\max}$	20 generated turns per session
Generation temperature	0.7 (Director extraction and rewriting: 0)
Maximum tokens per response	1000 (extraction and single-prompt baseline: 3000–4000)
Context window	8192 tokens
Memory window k	5 turns (ablation: 1)
Speaker selection	addressee-aware softmax, $\alpha = 2.0$, $\beta = 1.5$, $\gamma = 1.0$, $\tau = 0.7$ (ablations: uniform, round robin)
Random seeds	0–4 (main experiment, improvement 1); 0–2 (ablations, extension, improvement 2)
JSON retry budget	3 attempts per call; mode enforcement: 1 regeneration + Director rewrite
Sentiment analysis	DistilBERT (SST-2), TextBlob, VADER
Subjectivity analysis	TextBlob
Pronoun and lexical analysis	spaCy `en_core_web_sm`, `wordfreq` Zipf frequencies

Design and number of runs. In the main experiment, every combination of excerpt (6), generator (3), narrative mode (3) and seed (5) was simulated once, giving 270 sessions with at most 20 generated turns each. Each excerpt–model–seed block contains one session per mode; the blocks share the Director's scene initialization and the seed, so that modes can be compared in a paired design. The rule-based transposition baseline was obtained by converting every first-person session of the main experiment into third-person reported speech (pronoun substitution plus a reporting frame such as "O-lan told Wang Lung that …"), without any change of content. The ablations were run with Llama 3.1 8B on all six excerpts, in the first- and third-person modes and with seeds 0–2 (36 sessions per condition). The voice-exemplar extension was run with all three generators, both modes and seeds 0–2 (108 sessions). The two improvement experiments, which change only the third-person mode, were run with all three generators and seeds 0–4 (voice-preserving instruction, 90 sessions) and seeds 0–2 (speak-then-narrate, 54 sessions). In total, 702 sessions with 13704 generated turns were analyzed; 24 sessions ended before the twentieth turn because the selected characters chose to remain silent four times in a row.

3.2 Scene initialization and pipeline reliability

Table 3 summarizes the quality of the Director's dialogue extraction and of the mode enforcement. Averaged over excerpts and models, the Director recovered 96.7% of the manually attributed quotations, attributed 93.2% of the recovered quotations to the correct speaker after alias mapping, and produced 2.5% of utterances that could not be matched to the source text. Typical errors were merged or split quotations

and misattributions of short replies in multi-party scenes (e.g., the eldest son's line in *The Good Earth* was assigned to Wang Lung by some models). Because the cast was verified and the opening turns are shared by all modes within a block, such errors affect all modes equally and cannot create mode differences.

With JSON-constrained decoding, none of the 15772 LLM calls made during the simulation sessions produced unparseable output, so the repair routine and the retry budget were never needed. (In a pilot implementation without constrained decoding, most generations had required repairs or retries.) In the first-person mode, 99.8% of the generated turns complied with the mode at the first attempt. In the third-person mode, 95.8% complied at the first attempt, 3.9% were corrected by regeneration and 0.3% were rewritten by the Director, leaving 0.0% non-compliant turns. Compliance at the first attempt differed between models (Table 3).

Table 3. Director extraction quality and narrative-mode enforcement. Extraction is evaluated against manually attributed quotations (mean over six excerpts); enforcement figures are shares of generated turns in the main experiment. FP: first person; TP: third person.

Model	Quote recall	Attribution acc.	Fabricated	TP compliant (1st)	TP regenerated	TP rewritten	Residual (TP)	Residual (FP)
Llama 3.1 8B	0.96	0.95	0.02	0.932	0.060	0.008	0.000	0.000
Qwen2.5 14B	0.94	0.93	0.00	0.998	0.002	0.000	0.000	0.000
Gemma 3 12B	1.00	0.92	0.05	0.945	0.055	0.000	0.000	0.002

3.3 An example of the generated dialogues

Table 4 shows the first eight turns of two sessions generated by Qwen2.5 14B for the scene from *The Good Earth*, with the same role cards, opening and seed but different narrative modes. The first-person session consists of direct speech in which the characters address one another ("My wife, do not fret"); in the third-person session, a narrator reports the same kinds of speech acts ("Wang Lung reassured O-lan that …") and occasionally adds gestures or inner states. Both sessions develop the situation of the source scene, O-lan's wish to see her eldest son married before she dies, but neither reproduces the novel: the agents produce new dialogue that is plausible for the scene, and they sometimes introduce details that do not occur in the novel. Complete transcripts of all sessions are released with the code.

3.4 Manipulation check and effects of narrative mode

Table 5 reports the session-level means of all measures in the three instructed modes and in the rule-based transposition, together with the paired first- versus third-person comparisons; Fig. 3 shows the standardized differences for all pairs of conditions.

Manipulation check. The mode instructions were realized as intended. First-person pronouns accounted for 0.846 of the first- and third-person pronouns in first-person sessions and for 0.000 in third-person sessions, and characters were referred to by name 1.97 times per turn in the third-person mode against 0.28 times in the first-person mode. Without any instruction (neutral control), the models also produced mainly first-person direct speech (first-person ratio 0.800). First-person direct speech is therefore the default way in which role-playing LLMs render a character's turn, and the third-person instruction is the manipulation that departs from this default. These pronoun differences are a direct consequence of the instructions and are not interpreted as findings.

Subjectivity and affect. Subjectivity as measured by TextBlob did not differ between the two modes: the mean was 0.486 in first-person and 0.483 in third-person sessions (first-minus-third difference 0.003, 95% CI [−0.019, 0.024], $d_z = 0.03$, $p_{\text{Holm}} = 1.000$), and the difference was positive in only 9/18 excerpt–model cells. Affect, in contrast, differed. Emotional intensity (absolute TextBlob polarity) was higher in first-person sessions (0.205 vs. 0.171; difference 0.034, CI [0.018, 0.050], $d_z = 0.45$, $p_{\text{Holm}} < 0.001$; positive in 15/18 cells), and so was TextBlob polarity (difference 0.028, CI [0.010, 0.046], $p_{\text{Holm}} = 0.025$; 16/18 cells), whereas VADER polarity showed no reliable difference ($p_{\text{Holm}} = 1.000$). These differences are not produced by the narrative form as such: the rule-based transposition left intensity and TextBlob polarity unchanged. The DistilBERT classifier also rated first-person turns as more positive (difference 0.161, CI [0.088, 0.235], $d_z = 0.45$, $p_{\text{Holm}} < 0.001$), but here part of the difference is caused by the reporting frame itself: the transposition, which leaves the content unchanged, already lowered the DistilBERT score by 0.061. The effects on affect were strongest for Gemma 3 12B and small for the other two generators (Supplemental Information).

Table 4. Example of generated dialogue in the two narrative modes. First eight turns of the *The Good Earth* scene generated by Qwen2.5 14B (seed 0) with identical role cards and opening.

Mode	Turn	Speaker	Generated turn
First person	1	Wang Lung	My wife, do not fret. Our son will marry well and care for the fool as you have. The gods will see to it that all is well.
	2	O-lan	I know it is hard to let go, but you must look after them as I cannot. Ensure they are cared for and that the fool is well taken care of.
	3	Wang Lung	My dear, you must rest now. The eldest son will marry soon, and I will see to it that all your wishes are fulfilled. Do not worry, for I am here and will take care of everything.
	4	O-lan	I trust you, my husband, and I know you will do right by them. But promise me you will see to the fool's needs as I have.
	5	the eldest son	Mother, please rest assured. I will take care of everything as Father says. I will marry soon and look after the fool as you have.
	6	Wang Lung	My son, your words are a comfort. I will see to it that the wedding preparations are made and that your mother's last wishes are honored.
	7	the eldest son	Mother, please try to rest. Father and I will make sure everything is taken care of.
	8	O-lan	Thank you, my son. And Father, I know you will see to it. I only ask that you do not forget the fool's happiness above all.
Third person	1	Wang Lung	Wang Lung reassured O-lan that everything would be taken care of, that their son would be guided well and that she had no need to worry about him or the family. He insisted that he would see her wishes fulfilled and that her eldest son would have a good life.
	2	O-lan	O-lan asked Wang Lung if he had ensured that their son would be taught the ways of respect and duty towards his wife and her family, and if he had reminded him of the importance of providing for his wife and children.
	3	Wang Lung	Wang Lung assured O-lan that he would see to it that their son would be taught the ways of respect and duty, and that he would remind him of the importance of providing for his wife and her family, as she wished.
	4	O-lan	O-lan asked Wang Lung if he had spoken to the maid about the importance of her role in the family, and if he had reminded her of the duties she owed to her husband and his ancestors.
	5	the eldest son	The eldest son, feeling a mix of nervousness and devotion, told his mother that he understood the importance of respecting his wife and her family and would do his best to provide for them.
	6	the maid	The maid told O-lan that she had understood her duties and would serve the family with all her heart, ensuring that she respected her husband and his ancestors.
	7	O-lan	O-lan told Wang Lung and the others that she felt reassured by their words, but she asked Wang Lung to ensure that the arrangements for her son's marriage were completed swiftly, for her peace of mind.
	8	Wang Lung	Wang Lung told O-lan that he would personally oversee the arrangements for the eldest son's marriage, ensuring that everything was done swiftly and in accordance with tradition to bring her peace of mind.

Lexical register. The largest and most consistent differences concerned the vocabulary. Content words were longer in third-person narration (7.05 vs. 6.67 characters; difference −0.386, CI [−0.474, −0.298], $d_z = -0.90$, $p_{\text{Holm}} < 0.001$), less frequent (Zipf frequency 4.50 vs. 4.62, $d_z = 0.78$, $p_{\text{Holm}} < 0.001$) and more often rare ($p_{\text{Holm}} = 0.002$). The rule-based transposition changed both measures in the opposite direction (content-word length 6.45, Zipf frequency 4.69), so the longer and rarer words of third-person narration are not an artefact of substituting names for pronouns; they reflect the reporting verbs and the more formal diction that the models adopt when they narrate (e.g., *reassured*, *insisted*, *expressed*). Third-person turns were also longer (41.2 vs. 34.2 words, $p_{\text{Holm}} < 0.001$), but most of this difference corresponds to the reporting frame, which by itself added 5.8 words per turn in the transposition. For lexical diversity, the length-robust MATTR was higher in third-person sessions (0.870 vs. 0.843, $p_{\text{Holm}} = 0.009$), although only in 11/18 excerpt–model cells and mainly for Gemma 3 12B, whereas MTLD showed no difference ($p_{\text{Holm}} = 1.000$). A higher lexical diversity of third-person narration is therefore only partly supported, and its size depends on the measure and on the generator.

Neutral control. The neutral sessions were close to the first-person sessions on the affective and lexical measures (Fig. 3): neither emotional intensity ($p_{\text{Holm}} = 0.738$) nor content-word length ($p_{\text{Holm}} = 0.738$) differed between them, whereas third-person sessions had lower intensity (−0.047, $p_{\text{Holm}} < 0.001$) and longer content words (0.335, $p_{\text{Holm}} < 0.001$) than the neutral sessions. Relative to the models' default, the differences between the two modes therefore arise from the third-person instruction: narration by an external narrator dampens affect and raises the lexical register, rather than first-person speech amplifying affect.

Table 5. Session-level means by narrative mode and paired first- vs. third-person comparisons (main experiment: 6 excerpts × 3 models × 5 seeds; $n = 90$ blocks). †Manipulation check. Rule-based: first-person sessions transposed to third person by pronoun substitution and a reporting frame. Δ: mean paired difference (first − third) with 95% bootstrap CI; d_z: Cohen's d_z; p_{Holm}: Wilcoxon signed-rank test, Holm-adjusted across the measures of the table; Cells > 0: excerpt–model cells (of 18) with a positive first − third difference.

Measure	First	Third	Neutral	Rule-based	Δ First−Third [95% CI]	d_z	p_{Holm}	Cells > 0
First-person ratio†	0.846	0.000	0.800	0.000	0.845 [0.820, 0.869]	7.17	<0.001	18/18
Self-reference by name†	0.3	2.0	0.3	1.9	−1.7 [−1.8, −1.5]	−2.23	<0.001	0/18
Subjectivity	0.486	0.483	0.499	0.486	0.003 [−0.019, 0.024]	0.03	1.000	9/18
Emotional intensity	0.205	0.171	0.218	0.205	0.034 [0.018, 0.050]	0.45	<0.001	15/18
Polarity (TextBlob)	0.121	0.092	0.124	0.121	0.028 [0.010, 0.046]	0.33	0.025	16/18
Polarity (VADER)	0.208	0.189	0.254	0.199	0.019 [−0.032, 0.069]	0.08	1.000	10/18
Polarity (DistilBERT)	0.223	0.062	0.284	0.162	0.161 [0.088, 0.235]	0.45	<0.001	12/18
Utterance length (words)	34.2	41.2	32.5	40.1	−7.0 [−9.1, −5.0]	−0.71	<0.001	5/18
Content-word length	6.669	7.054	6.719	6.450	−0.386 [−0.474, −0.298]	−0.90	<0.001	2/18
Content-word Zipf frequency	4.616	4.501	4.602	4.690	0.114 [0.084, 0.145]	0.78	<0.001	15/18
Rare-word rate	0.039	0.048	0.041	0.037	−0.009 [−0.014, −0.004]	−0.38	0.002	4/18
MATTR	0.843	0.870	0.860	0.805	−0.027 [−0.043, −0.012]	−0.36	0.009	7/18
MTLD	70.9	72.5	76.5	62.4	−1.6 [−5.7, 2.3]	−0.08	1.000	9/18

3.5 Generalization across texts and models

Figure 4 breaks the first- versus third-person differences down by excerpt and model. The manipulation checks had the same sign in all 18 cells. Among the outcome measures, content-word length was higher in third-person narration in 16/18 cells, Zipf frequency was higher in first-person turns in 15/18 cells, and emotional intensity and TextBlob polarity were higher in first-person turns in 15/18 and 16/18 cells, respectively. The DistilBERT difference (12/18 cells) and lexical diversity (MATTR higher in third person in 11/18 cells) were less consistent, and the sign of the subjectivity difference was split evenly (9/18). Linear mixed models with a random intercept for the excerpt and the generator as a fixed effect led to the same conclusions as the paired tests (e.g., content-word length −0.386, 95% CI [−0.486, −0.286]; subjectivity 0.003, [−0.020, 0.025]; first person relative to third person; Supplemental Information). The size of several effects depended on the generator: Gemma 3 12B, for example, produced much longer third-person turns than first-person turns (first-minus-third difference −17.9 words), while the other two models differed by fewer than five words. Effects that hold for one model on one text, as in single-run analyses, should therefore not be generalized without replication across texts and models.

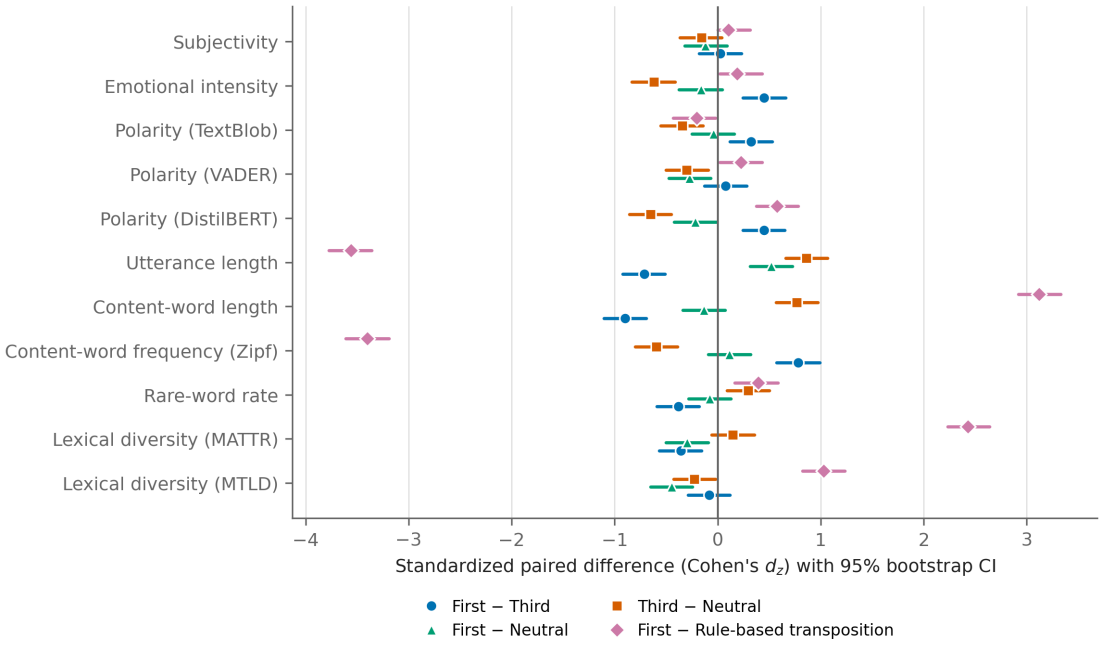


Figure 3. Standardized paired differences between narrative modes. Points show Cohen's d_z of the session-level differences for each measure and pair of conditions; bars show 95% bootstrap confidence intervals ($n = 90$ excerpt–model–seed blocks). Rule-based transposition: first-person sessions converted to third person by pronoun substitution and a reporting frame, without any change of content.

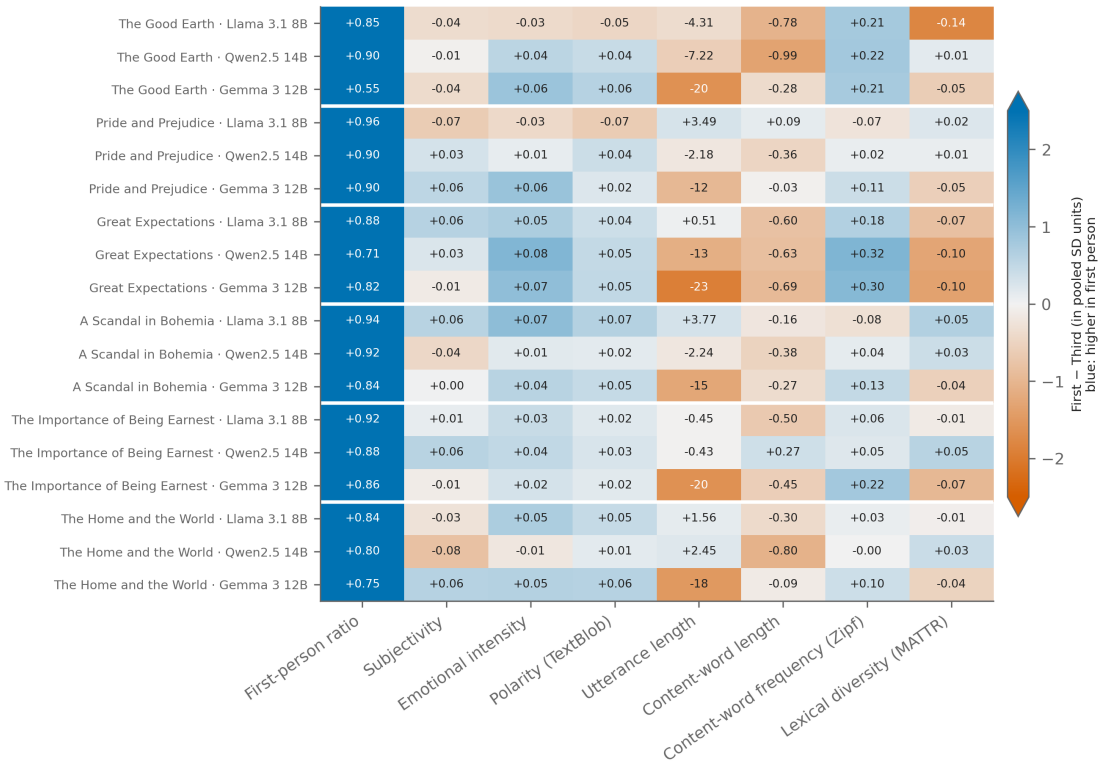


Figure 4. First- minus third-person differences for every excerpt and generator. Cells show the mean difference of the session-level measure over five seeds; colors show the difference in units of the pooled standard deviation (blue: higher in first person; orange: higher in third person; saturated at ± 2.5).

3.6 Character-level Analysis

We first examine the character-level distributions for *The Good Earth*. Figure 5 shows the distributions of content-word length and of word-frequency bands for the four characters in the two modes, and Table 6 summarizes them. In both modes, the characters used similar content-word lengths, and third-person narration shifted all characters towards longer and less frequent words, in line with the mode-level result. Differences between characters, such as the shorter words of supporting characters that a single run had suggested, were small compared with the differences between modes once five seeds and three models were considered.

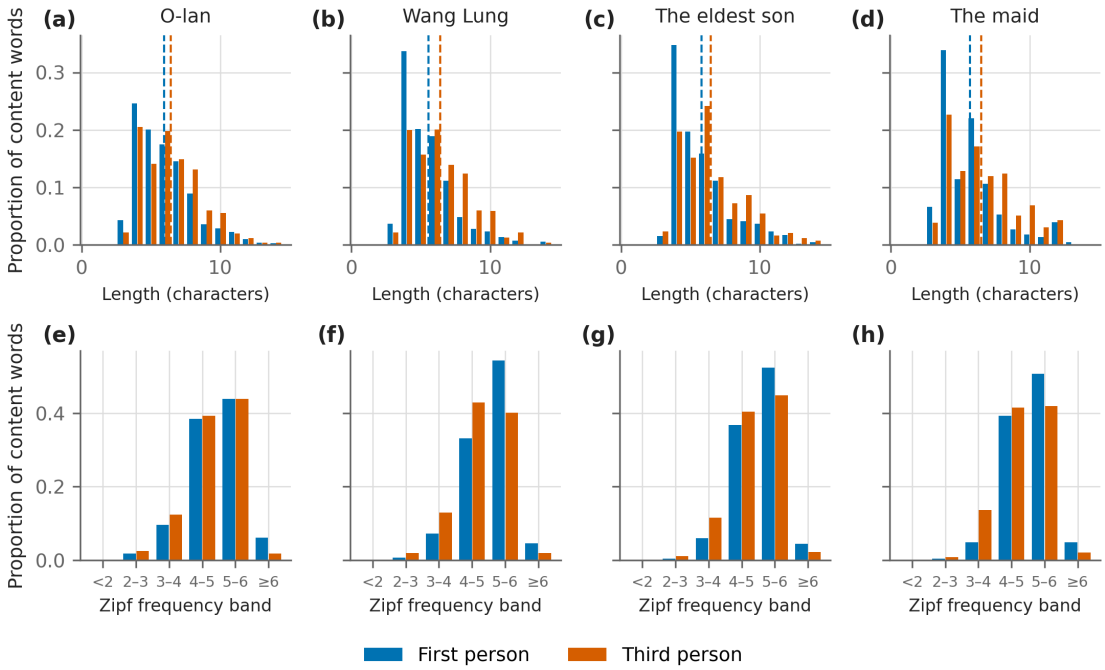


Figure 5. Content-word length (a–d) and word-frequency (e–h) distributions of the four characters of *The Good Earth* in first-person (blue) and third-person (orange) sessions (all models and seeds pooled). Dashed lines: mean word length. Frequency bands are Zipf frequencies from `wordfreq`.

Table 6. Character-level lexical statistics for *The Good Earth* (all models and seeds pooled). *S* within: composite consistency of the same character between its first- and third-person turns; *S* between: mean consistency with the other characters of the scene in the same mode (averaged over models; characters with fewer than 120 content words in a mode are omitted).

Character	Mode	Turns	Content words	Word length (SD)	Zipf	Subjectivity	*S* within	*S* between
O-lan	First	87	848	5.94 (2.03)	4.98	0.434	0.943	0.945
	Third	82	1020	6.43 (2.12)	4.81	0.466		
Wang Lung	First	75	689	5.56 (1.90)	5.01	0.462	0.937	0.941
	Third	72	941	6.40 (2.12)	4.77	0.451		
the eldest son	First	62	466	5.81 (2.14)	5.02	0.494	0.932	0.942
	Third	56	694	6.47 (2.29)	4.85	0.556		
the maid	First	29	227	5.70 (2.19)	4.98	0.446		
	Third	24	234	6.50 (2.36)	4.81	0.440		

Figure 6 shows the distribution of session-level subjectivity by mode and a Bland–Altman analysis (Bland and Altman, 1986) of character-level subjectivity in the two modes. The mean difference was close to zero (0.003) with wide limits of agreement, i.e., switching the narrative mode changed a character's subjectivity in both directions, depending on the character, the text and the model. Single runs can therefore suggest a subjectivity difference in either direction, whereas across seeds, texts and models there is none.

Are character-specific traits preserved across modes? Small Jensen–Shannon divergences between

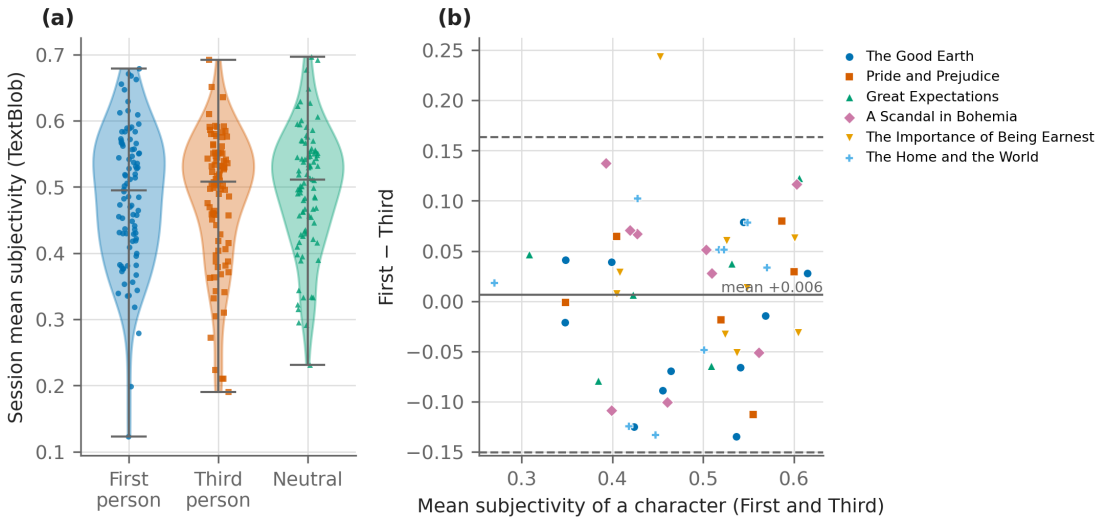


Figure 6. Subjectivity by narrative mode. (a) Session-level mean subjectivity in the three modes ($n = 90$ sessions each). (b) Bland–Altman plot of character-level subjectivity in first- versus third-person sessions; solid line: mean difference; dashed lines: 95% limits of agreement.

a character's first- and third-person turns might be taken as evidence that character-specific lexical traits remain stable across modes. This conclusion requires a baseline: if all characters of a scene speak alike, small divergences between a character's first- and third-person turns say nothing about that character. Figure 7a compares each character's cross-mode consistency with its consistency with the other characters of the same scene. The two were practically identical (mean S = 0.936 within characters vs. 0.933 between characters; Wilcoxon $p = 0.347$, $n = 47$ characters). The distributional measure therefore cannot distinguish characters, and the stability it indicates reflects the shared style of the generator rather than character identity.

A more sensitive test is speaker attribution. Within each excerpt–model cell, we trained a logistic-regression classifier on the content words of the turns (character names and pronouns removed) to predict the speaker. Within a mode (leave-one-seed-out), the classifier identified the speaker with a balanced accuracy of 0.84 (chance 0.38). When the classifier was trained on one mode and tested on the other, accuracy dropped to 0.63, which is still above chance in 18 of 18 cells (Wilcoxon $p < 0.001$) but clearly below the within-mode accuracy ($p < 0.001$; Fig. 7b). A classifier based on function words gave the same pattern at a lower level (within 0.69, across 0.51). Character identity is therefore partially, but not fully, preserved when the narrative mode changes: the agents keep their topics and concerns, while the narrative frame changes how they are expressed.

3.7 Turn-level dynamics

Figure 8 shows the mean subjectivity per turn. In all three modes, subjectivity fluctuated around a stable level without a systematic trend, and the curves overlapped throughout the twenty turns. In particular, first-person sessions did not remain more subjective than third-person sessions over the course of the dialogue.

3.8 Ablation study: narrative control, memory and speaker selection

To isolate the contributions of narrative control, actor memory and speaker selection, we ran ablations with Llama 3.1 8B on all six excerpts, in both modes and with three seeds, and compared with the full framework on the same excerpts, modes and seeds (Table 7, Fig. 9). We also added a single-prompt baseline in which one LLM call writes the whole continuation.

Narrative control. Without any perspective instruction (neutral control), the models rendered the turns as first-person direct speech, so that the instruction is necessary to obtain third-person narration at all. When the instruction was kept but the Director's compliance check and rewriting were disabled, 10.3% of the third-person turns still violated the mode, and the first-minus-third difference in the first-person ratio fell from 0.898 to 0.833 ($p = 0.002$). Director enforcement therefore makes the manipulation cleaner,

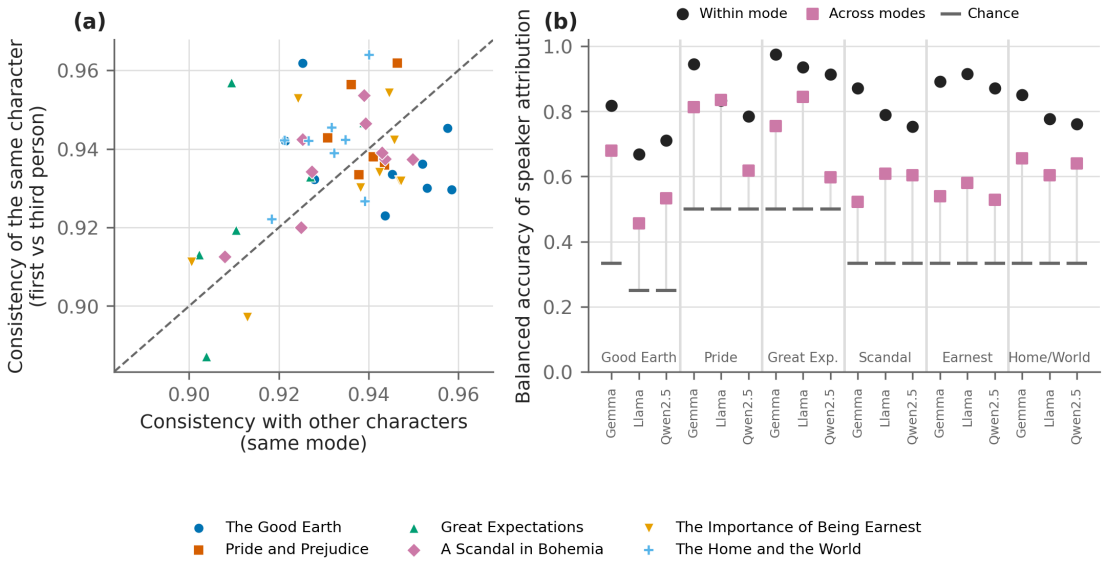


Figure 7. Character identity across narrative modes. (a) Composite distributional consistency *S* of each character between its first- and third-person turns (y) against its mean consistency with the other characters of the scene in the same mode (x); points above the diagonal would indicate preserved character-specific traits. (b) Balanced accuracy of speaker attribution from content words within a mode (leave-one-seed-out) and across modes (trained on one mode, tested on the other) for every excerpt–model cell; horizontal bars mark chance.

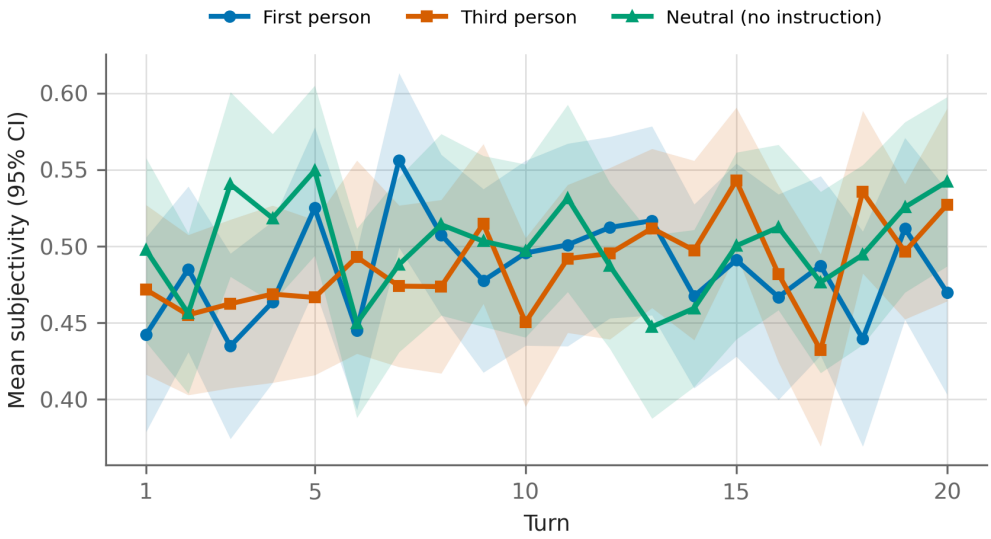


Figure 8. Turn-level subjectivity by narrative mode (mean over all excerpts, models and seeds with 95% confidence bands).

although most turns comply without it. In the single-prompt baseline, the modes were hardly separated: the first-minus-third difference in the first-person ratio was only 0.350, because many *third-person* turns were still written as direct speech, and the turns were much shorter (14.2 vs. 31.4 words). Controlling the narrative voice turn by turn thus requires the multi-agent design with explicit enforcement.

Actor memory. Restricting the Actor's memory to the previous turn ($k = 1$) did not change subjectivity ($p = 0.704$) or lexical diversity ($p = 0.907$), but it lowered the share of turns that complied with the mode at the first attempt (0.899 vs. 0.957, $p = 0.003$) and increased the share of turns that the Director had to rewrite (0.047 vs. 0.006). The recent turns in the memory window thus also act as in-context examples of the required narrative form. Turn-taking became slightly less balanced (0.935 vs. 0.955).

Speaker selection. The addressee-aware policy produced turns that answered the character addressed in the previous turn in 90.8% of the cases, compared with 34.0% under uniform random selection, the policy of an earlier implementation, and 66.4% under a fixed round-robin order (both $p < 0.001$). Uniform selection also let the same character speak twice in a row in 46.5% of the turns (addressee-aware: 0.7%). Round robin maximized the balance of turns (0.999 vs. 0.955), at the cost of ignoring who was addressed. None of the speaker-selection policies changed the narrative-mode effects (Table 7).

Judged quality. The LLM judges (described below) rated the sessions with uniform speaker selection as the least coherent (Phi-4: 4.25 vs. 4.39 for the full framework; Qwen3.5: 3.14 vs. 3.61), and Qwen3.5 also rated the sessions without memory as less coherent (3.39). The single-prompt baseline received the highest coherence ratings from both judges (4.69 and 3.92): writing a whole scene in one call produces short and fluent exchanges, but, as shown above, without reliable control of the narrative voice. The multi-agent design is therefore not needed for fluency, but for turn-level control of voice, speaker and addressee.

Table 7. Ablation results (Llama 3.1 8B; 6 excerpts × 2 modes × 3 seeds per condition), compared with the full framework on the same excerpts, modes and seeds. Responsiveness: share of turns by the character addressed in the previous turn; turn balance: normalized entropy of the speaker distribution; self-succession: share of consecutive turns by the same speaker; repetition: 1 − share of distinct word trigrams; compliant (1st) and residual viol.: share of turns that followed the mode at the first attempt and after enforcement. Gap: mean first − third difference of subjectivity and of the first-person ratio within a block. *Paired Wilcoxon test against the full framework, $p < 0.05/6$.

Condition	Responsiveness	Turn balance	Self-succession	Repetition	Compliant (1st)	Residual viol.	Gap subj.	Gap FP ratio
Full framework	0.908	0.955	0.007	0.150	0.957	0.000	−0.015	0.898
−Memory ($k = 1$)	0.938	0.935	0.006	0.140	0.899*	0.010	0.009	0.913
−Speaker selection (uniform)	0.340*	0.974	0.465*	0.131	0.944	0.001	0.015	0.912
−Speaker selection (round robin)	0.664*	0.999*	0.000	0.148	0.968	0.001	0.032	0.895
−Mode enforcement	0.904	0.956	0.009	0.139*	0.949	0.051*	−0.029	0.833
Single-prompt baseline	0.808	0.968	0.004	0.116	–	–	0.049	0.350

3.9 LLM-judge evaluation

Table 8 and Fig. 10 summarize the evaluation by the two LLM judges. The judges agreed only weakly with each other: Krippendorff's α was 0.41 for subjectivity, 0.23 for coherence and 0.01 for emotional intensity, and it was negative for character consistency and scene fidelity, which Phi-4 rated at or near the maximum for almost all sessions. Their judgements must therefore be interpreted separately and with caution.

Narrative form. Qwen3.5 classified the dominant narrative form of 100.0% of the first-person and 100.0% of the third-person sessions as instructed. Phi-4 recognized 68.9% of the first-person sessions but labelled many third-person sessions as "mixed" (46.7% classified as third-person narration), presumably because the narrated turns report speech and thought.

Quality and perceived affect. Phi-4 rated the sessions of all three modes as highly coherent and faithful to the scene, with only a small coherence advantage of first-person sessions (4.73 vs. 4.62, $p = 0.012$) and no difference in perceived subjectivity ($p = 0.618$) or emotional intensity ($p = 0.209$). Qwen3.5 rated third-person sessions lower on every criterion, including perceived subjectivity (4.16 vs. 2.93) and emotional intensity (3.47 vs. 2.48), but also character consistency (3.64 vs. 2.43) and scene fidelity (2.89 vs. 1.96; all $p < 0.001$), whereas first-person and neutral sessions received the same ratings. Because character consistency and scene fidelity should not depend on the narrative form, this pattern suggests that Qwen3.5 generally prefers direct-speech dialogue (a halo effect) rather than perceiving

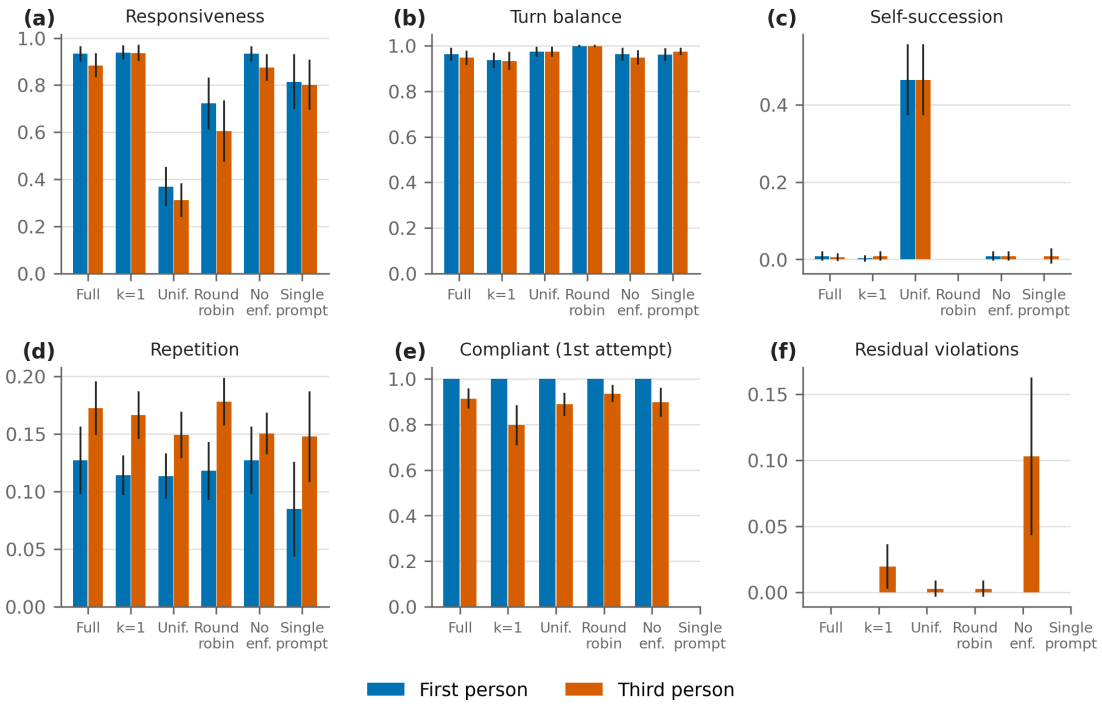


Figure 9. Ablation of memory, speaker selection and mode enforcement, and the single-prompt baseline (Llama 3.1 8B, 6 excerpts, 3 seeds; blue: first-person sessions, orange: third-person sessions; error bars: 95% confidence intervals). (a) Addressee responsiveness; (b) turn-taking balance; (c) self-succession; (d) repetition; (e) mode compliance at the first attempt; (f) residual mode violations after enforcement. Full: full framework; $k = 1$: memory of one turn; Unif.: uniform speaker selection; Round robin: fixed speaker order; No enf.: without Director enforcement; Single prompt: single-prompt baseline.

lower subjectivity specifically. Both judges' subjectivity ratings correlated only weakly with TextBlob subjectivity at the session level (Spearman $\rho = 0.13$ and 0.12) and at the turn level ($\rho = 0.10$ and 0.14). Perceived subjectivity is therefore measure-dependent: the lexicon-based measure and one judge found no difference between the modes, while the other judge rated first-person speech as more subjective. In the expert evaluation (subsection 3.11), perceived subjectivity also differed little between the modes, in line with the lexicon-based measure and Phi-4, although the expert sample is small.

Character identity. In the masked speaker-identification task, both judges identified the speaker of a turn far above chance in all modes (Phi-4: 0.89 in first-person, 0.88 in third-person turns; Qwen3.5: 0.91 and 0.89; chance 0.38; binomial tests $p < 0.001$), and the two judges chose the same speaker for 91.3% of the turns. Since the role cards were available to the judges, this shows that the turns remain recognizably tied to their characters' situations and concerns in both modes, which complements the cross-mode attribution analysis.

Table 8. LLM-judge evaluation of the main-experiment sessions (1–5 scales; $n = 90$ sessions per mode and judge). Form correct: share of sessions whose dominant narrative form was classified as the instructed one. Speaker ID: accuracy of identifying the speaker of a turn with all names masked (chance level in parentheses).

Judge	Mode	Coherence	Char. consistency	Scene fidelity	Subjectivity	Emot. intensity	Form correct	Speaker ID (chance)
Phi-4 14B	First	4.73	5.00	4.89	3.62	3.86	0.69	0.89 (0.38)
Phi-4 14B	Neutral	4.71	5.00	4.89	3.60	3.76	–	0.92 (0.38)
Phi-4 14B	Third	4.62	4.99	4.83	3.59	3.78	0.47	0.88 (0.37)
Qwen3.5 9B	First	4.53	3.64	2.89	4.16	3.47	1.00	0.91 (0.38)
Qwen3.5 9B	Neutral	4.54	3.64	2.84	4.20	3.52	–	0.93 (0.38)
Qwen3.5 9B	Third	3.74	2.43	1.96	2.93	2.48	1.00	0.89 (0.37)

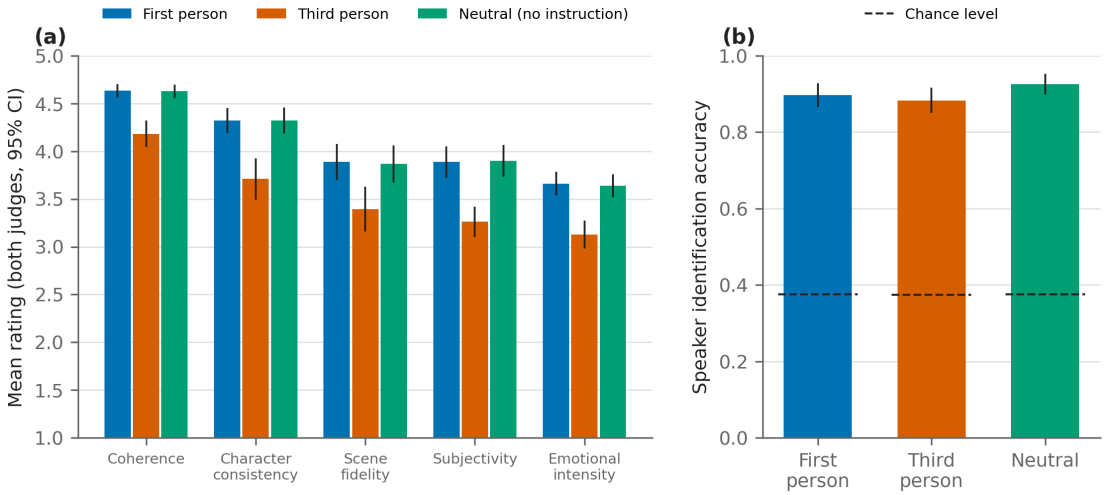


Figure 10. LLM-judge evaluation. (a) Mean ratings of the main-experiment sessions by narrative mode (both judges pooled; error bars: 95% confidence intervals). (b) Accuracy of masked speaker identification by narrative mode (both judges pooled); dashed lines mark chance.

3.10 Improving the preservation of character identity

Two results above show what the standard third-person mode loses: a character's turns could be attributed to the right speaker across modes only partially, and narration shifted the vocabulary towards a register that is not the character's own. We therefore tested three ways of keeping the characters' voice in third-person narration. All three change only the narrative-mode component of the framework and were run on the same excerpts and with the same generators, settings and seeds as the sessions they are compared with; Table 9 summarizes the results.

Voice exemplars. In the first attempt, the Director added up to three of each character's lines from the excerpt to the role card as "voice examples", with the instruction to imitate the voice and diction but

not the content (Appendix A.7). This extension was run in both modes with seeds 0–2. The exemplars did not make the characters more distinguishable: speaker attribution from content words reached 0.76 within a mode and 0.60 across modes, compared with 0.78 and 0.60 without exemplars (chance 0.39), and the LLM judges identified the speakers of masked turns slightly less accurately than without exemplars (e.g., Phi-4: 0.86 vs. 0.89 for first-person turns; Qwen3.5: 0.85 vs. 0.91). At the same time, fewer turns complied with the mode at the first attempt (0.957 vs. 0.978, $p = 0.004$), because the exemplars, which are direct speech, pulled third-person turns back towards direct speech.

Voice-preserving instruction. In the second attempt, the third-person instruction itself asked the Actor to keep the character's own words, idioms and tone instead of paraphrasing them in the narrator's language, that is, to narrate in free indirect style (Appendix A.7; 90 sessions, seeds 0–4). This partly achieved its aim. Speakers became more identifiable across modes: cross-mode attribution rose from 0.63 to 0.67 with content words (higher in 14 of 18 excerpt–model cells, $p = 0.074$) and from 0.51 to 0.58 with function words (16 of 18 cells, $p = 0.003$). The register shift became smaller: the mean absolute difference in content-word length between a first-person session and the corresponding third-person session fell from 0.46 to 0.38 characters ($p_{\text{Holm}} = 0.033$), and emotional intensity no longer differed reliably from first-person speech (0.205 vs. 0.196, $p_{\text{Holm}} = 0.579$). The price was a conflict between the two demands of the instruction. Only 67.7% of the turns complied with the third-person form at the first attempt (standard third-person mode: 95.8%; Llama 3.1 8B: 38.5%), 4.0% of the turns still contained direct speech after enforcement, and both judges rated the sessions as less coherent (Phi-4: 4.23 vs. 4.62; Qwen3.5: 2.70 vs. 3.74). The gain in attribution was not caused by leaked direct speech: without the non-compliant turns, cross-mode attribution was 0.66 (content words) and 0.58 (function words). The judges' masked speaker identification did not change (Phi-4: 0.87 vs. 0.88; Qwen3.5: 0.89 vs. 0.89).

Speak-then-narrate. The third attempt separates what a character says from how the narrator reports it. The Actor receives exactly the same instruction as in the first-person mode and speaks in the character's own voice; the Director then turns this speech into third-person narration in free indirect style, changing only pronouns, tense and at most a short reporting phrase (Appendix A.7). If the narration still contains direct speech, the Director narrates once more with a hint and, as a last resort, uses the standard third-person rendering. Because the Actor prompt is identical to that of the first-person condition, this variant also isolates the contribution of the narration itself (54 sessions, seeds 0–2). Mode control remained reliable (89.4% of the turns were narrated correctly at the first attempt; residual violations: 0.6%), and the narrated turns kept the characters' voice considerably better than the standard third-person turns. Cross-mode attribution rose from 0.60 to 0.73 with content words (higher in 17 of 18 cells, $p < 0.001$) and from 0.52 to 0.63 with function words ($p < 0.001$), and the distributional consistency of a character across modes increased from S = 0.935 to S = 0.950 ($p < 0.001$). The register shift largely disappeared: the mean absolute first–third difference fell from 0.47 to 0.26 characters in content-word length ($p_{\text{Holm}} < 0.001$), from 0.14 to 0.08 in Zipf frequency ($p_{\text{Holm}} = 0.024$) and from 9.5 to 2.8 words in utterance length ($p_{\text{Holm}} < 0.001$). Narrated turns no longer differed reliably from first-person speech in content-word length (6.64 vs. 6.73, $p_{\text{Holm}} = 0.364$), word frequency ($p_{\text{Holm}} = 1.000$), emotional intensity ($p_{\text{Holm}} = 1.000$) or TextBlob polarity ($p_{\text{Holm}} = 1.000$); only the DistilBERT score, which reacts to the reporting frame, remained lower ($p_{\text{Holm}} = 0.005$). The LLM judges did not share this assessment. They identified the speakers of masked narrated turns less accurately than those of standard third-person turns (Phi-4: 0.78 vs. 0.88, $p = 0.010$; Qwen3.5: 0.81 vs. 0.89, $p = 0.023$) and rated the sessions as less coherent (Phi-4: 4.30 vs. 4.61; Qwen3.5: 2.22 vs. 3.67). Free indirect style blends the narrator's and the character's voice by definition, and turns that keep the character's wording without the narrator's explanatory framing may read as less natural; whether human readers share the judges' impression remains to be tested.

Summary. Character identity across modes can thus be improved, but not by giving the Actors more examples of the character's speech. What matters is who formulates the third-person turn. When the narrator paraphrases the turn, as in the standard mode, the vocabulary shifts towards the narrator's register and part of the character's identity is lost; when the narration only transposes the character's own words, the lexical identity of the characters is largely preserved, at the price of lower judged coherence. We keep the standard third-person mode as the main experimental condition, because it corresponds to conventional narratorial report, and provide speak-then-narrate as an option of the framework for studies in which the characters' wording has to be held constant. The comparison also clarifies the main result: the more formal register of third-person narration in our simulations is produced by narratorial paraphrase

rather than by the grammatical person as such (content-word length, standard vs. narrated third person: 7.04 vs. 6.73, $p_{\text{Holm}} < 0.001$). The same may hold for the dampened affect, but the direct comparison of the two third-person variants was not significant for emotional intensity ($p_{\text{Holm}} = 0.313$).

Table 9. Attempts to preserve character identity in third-person narration. Each cell gives the value of the variant and, in parentheses, the value of the standard framework on the same excerpts, models and seeds. Compliance and residual violations refer to third-person turns (voice exemplars: both modes). Cross-mode attribution: balanced accuracy of a content-word classifier trained on one mode and tested on the other (first person vs. the variant's third-person mode). Speaker ID: accuracy of the LLM judges on masked third-person turns (seeds 0–2). |FP−TP|: mean absolute first-minus-third difference per excerpt, model and seed (content-word length in characters; emotional intensity).

Variant	Sessions	Compliant (1st)	Residual viol.	Cross-mode attribution	Speaker ID Phi-4	Speaker ID Qwen3.5	|FP−TP| word length	|FP−TP| intensity
Voice exemplars (both modes)	108	0.957 (0.978)	0.002 (0.000)	0.60 (0.60)	0.86 (0.88)	0.86 (0.89)	–	–
Voice-preserving instruction	90	0.677 (0.958)	0.040 (0.000)	0.67 (0.63)	0.87 (0.88)	0.89 (0.89)	0.38 (0.46)	0.054 (0.063)
Speak-then-narrate	54	0.894 (0.958)	0.006 (0.000)	0.73 (0.60)	0.78 (0.88)	0.81 (0.89)	0.26 (0.47)	0.044 (0.055)

3.11 Expert evaluation

To check the automatic measures and the LLM judges against human readers, three raters with master's degrees in English literature (two) or English drama (one) evaluated a blinded subset of the generated dialogues. The subset comprised 12 sessions, namely four excerpts (*Pride and Prejudice*, *Great Expectations*, "A Scandal in Bohemia" and *The Home and the World*, each with one generator), each in the first-person, the standard third-person and the speak-then-narrate condition (seed 0, first eight turns), and 36 masked turns, three per session, drawn from the turns that the LLM judges had rated. The raters did not know the generating model or the condition. They rated every session on 1–5 scales for coherence, character consistency, subjectivity and emotional intensity, each scale point being described in one sentence, classified its narrative form as first person, third person or mixed, and identified the speaker of every masked turn among the characters of the scene. The instructions were given in Chinese; the dialogues were in English. The raters were asked to work independently and without AI tools. Their responses were entered into the rating sheets by one of the authors, who was not blind to the conditions; the item-level ratings are released with the data. Because the condition means rest on four excerpts each, we report them descriptively and do not test differences between conditions (Supplemental Information, S12).

The experts agreed with each other moderately to substantially (Krippendorff's $\alpha = 0.79$ for coherence, 0.72 for character consistency, 0.78 for subjectivity and 0.55 for emotional intensity), clearly more than the two LLM judges ($\alpha \leq 0.41$; Table 8), although on far fewer sessions. They identified the speakers of the masked turns far above chance in all three conditions (first person: 1.00, standard third person: 0.86, speak-then-narrate: 0.97; chance 0.42; majority vote of the raters correct for 12, 10 and 12 of 12 turns, binomial tests $p = 0.004$ or smaller) and more accurately than the LLM judges on the same turns (Phi-4: 0.75; Qwen3.5: 0.75). They classified 100.0% of the first-person sessions as first-person speech, but only 75.0% of the standard third-person and 75.0% of the speak-then-narrate sessions as third-person narration, labelling the others as mixed, as Phi-4 often did. Their session ratings correlated moderately with those of the judges (Spearman ρ between 0.45 and 0.69 over the 12 sessions; Phi-4's character-consistency ratings did not vary) and with the automatic measures of subjectivity ($\rho = 0.68$) and emotional intensity ($\rho = 0.43$).

Like the LLM judges, the experts gave the speak-then-narrate sessions the lowest coherence ratings (2.33, vs. 3.25 for first-person and 2.83 for standard third-person sessions). Perceived subjectivity differed little between the conditions (4.08, 3.83 and 4.17), emotional intensity was rated lowest for the standard third-person sessions (3.08, vs. 3.50 and 3.42), and character consistency was not rated lower for standard third-person than for first-person sessions (3.17 vs. 2.58). These results agree with the LLM judges and the automatic analysis in three respects: the characters remain recognizable in third-person narration, although somewhat less reliably than in first-person speech; narration changes perceived subjectivity little; and the speak-then-narrate rendering is achieved at a cost in coherence. The evaluation is, however, small (3 raters, 12 sessions, one seed and one generator per excerpt), and the responses were transcribed by an author; we therefore regard it as a plausibility check rather than as a test of the hypotheses.

4 DISCUSSION

4.1 Interpretation of Findings

Our experiments support some of the hypotheses that motivated this study and not others. First, the framework controls narrative voice reliably: with Director enforcement, almost all turns followed the instructed mode across six excerpts and three generators, and the pronoun profile of the dialogue changed exactly as intended. Second, the clearest consequence of switching from first-person direct speech to third-person narration was a change of lexical register: narrated turns used longer, less frequent and more often rare content words, consistently across texts and models and in the opposite direction of what the mere substitution of pronouns and names produces. Third, third-person narration was affectively more neutral: emotional intensity and TextBlob polarity were lower than in first-person speech, in most excerpt–model cells and independently of the reporting frame, although the effects were small to moderate and strongest for one generator. The comparison with the no-instruction control shows that this reflects a dampening of affect by narration rather than an amplification by first-person speech, which is the models' default. Fourth, lexicon-based subjectivity was unaffected, the two LLM judges disagreed on perceived subjectivity, and the experts perceived little difference between the modes (subsection 3.11). In the case of our simulations, these results therefore support the hypothesis that third-person narration promotes a more neutral, descriptive register, they support the hypothesis of stronger emotional polarity in first-person speech only in this relative sense and with small effects, and they do not support the hypothesis that first-person narration increases subjectivity, at least not as measured by the lexicon-based score.

At the character level, the composite Jensen–Shannon measure did not distinguish characters from one another, so it cannot show that character traits are preserved. Moreover, a small divergence would in any case only characterize the particular simulations produced here, not the robustness of the approach in general. The attribution analysis indicates that character identity, in the sense of what each character talks about, is partially preserved across modes: speakers remained identifiable above chance after the change of mode, but less accurately than within a mode. The improvement experiments locate this loss: when the third-person turn only transposes the character's own speech (speak-then-narrate), cross-mode attribution rises to 0.73 and the register shift largely disappears, so the partial loss of identity in the standard mode arises from the narrator's paraphrase of the turn.

4.2 Prompt design and the interpretation of perspective effects

A central concern for any prompt-based manipulation is that differences between modes may be direct consequences of the prompts. Our analysis is therefore designed to separate three kinds of effects. (i) Effects that the instruction states explicitly, such as the pronoun profile and self-reference by name, are manipulation checks. (ii) Effects that follow mechanically from rendering a turn as reported speech are estimated by the rule-based transposition, which changes pronouns and adds a reporting frame without changing the content; this baseline accounts for most of the difference in utterance length and for part of the DistilBERT difference, but not for the differences in content-word length, word frequency, intensity and TextBlob polarity. (iii) Only effects that go beyond the transposition, such as the longer and rarer content words and the lower emotional intensity of third-person narration, indicate how the generators realize the instruction to narrate. Even these effects describe the behavior of LLMs instructed to write in a given mode; they are not intrinsic properties of narrative perspective, and they may depend on the wording of the instructions. A useful reference point is provided by the source texts themselves: in the five prose excerpts, the narration had higher TextBlob subjectivity (0.379) than the quoted direct speech (0.267) and longer content words (6.14 vs. 5.49). Lexicon-based subjectivity thus mainly reflects evaluative and descriptive adjectives, which narrators use at least as much as characters, rather than the experiential subjectivity that narratologists associate with first-person narration; this is one reason why we interpret the absence of a subjectivity effect as a limitation of the measure as much as a property of the simulations.

4.3 Strengths and Limitations

The framework integrates character modeling, narrative-mode control and quantitative analysis into a replicable pipeline: all prompts are fixed, all random choices are seeded, all model responses are cached, and the code, the generated dialogues and the analysis scripts are released. The paired design keeps the role cards, the opening and the seed constant across modes, so that differences between modes can be attributed to the mode instruction. The evaluation covers six texts by different authors, genres and narrative structures, three open-weight models and five seeds, and the conclusions are based on paired

tests with confidence intervals, effect sizes and correction for multiple comparisons.

Several limitations remain. First, the results describe dialogues generated by three 4-bit quantized open-weight models of 8–14B parameters; larger or proprietary models may realize the narrative modes differently. Second, the six excerpts are short single scenes in English (one in translation), and each contributes one scene; the findings may not extend to long-form narrative, to other languages, or to other scenes of the same works. Third, the automatic measures were developed for other domains (product reviews, social media and general web text), and their validity for literary dialogue is limited, as the comparison with the source texts shows. Fourth, the LLM judges are not a substitute for human evaluation: one judge belongs to the same model family as one of the generators, the two judges agreed only weakly with each other (Krippendorff's α at most 0.41; Table 8), and one of them showed a general preference for direct-speech dialogue. Our expert evaluation agreed with the judges and the automatic measures on several points, but it was small (3 raters and 12 sessions), the responses were transcribed by an author who was not blind to the conditions, and it did not include lay readers. A larger evaluation with experts and readers, for which we release the rating protocol, remains an important next step, in particular to weigh the better preservation of character identity by the speak-then-narrate variant against its lower perceived coherence. Fifth, the cast lists were verified manually, so the framework is not fully automatic, and the Director's extraction still misattributes some quotations. Finally, the narrative modes manipulate grammatical person and narratorial mediation, but not focalization, so the results do not address the effects of focalization.

Narratological implications. Within these limits, the simulations suggest hypotheses that can be tested with human-authored texts and readers. Narratorial mediation appears to be expressed through a more formal, less frequent vocabulary and through a moderate dampening of affect, but not through a change of lexicon-based subjectivity; changing the narrative voice appears to preserve what characters talk about more than how they say it, unless the narrator's report stays close to the characters' own words, as in free indirect style; and first-person direct speech is the default voice of role-playing LLMs, which should be taken into account when such models are used to simulate narrative. We present these points as hypotheses supported by our simulations, not as confirmed properties of narrative.

5 CONCLUSION AND FUTURE WORK

This paper presented an LLM-driven multi-agent simulation framework for studying narrative voice shifts under controlled conditions. A Director Agent initializes a scene from a literary excerpt and enforces the narrative mode, Actor Agents with a sliding-window memory generate the dialogue, and a seeded speaker-selection policy organizes turn-taking. In experiments with six excerpts by six authors, three open-weight models and five seeds, the framework reliably controlled the narrative voice of the generated dialogues. In our simulations, third-person narration was associated with a more formal vocabulary and with lower emotional intensity and polarity than first-person speech, whereas lexicon-based subjectivity did not change; character identity was partially preserved across modes. A speak-then-narrate variant, in which the narrator only transposes the characters' own speech, preserved character identity much better and removed most of the register shift, which indicates that the shift arises from narratorial paraphrase. These results support some of the hypotheses that motivated this study and not others, and they show why single-run results from one text and one model should not be generalized.

Future work will include a larger human evaluation with literary experts and lay readers, larger and more diverse models, longer texts and additional languages, measures of narratorial subjectivity and focalization that are better suited to literary text than general-purpose sentiment lexicons, and comparisons between simulated and human-authored rewritings of the same scenes.

In summary, the study provides a replicable pathway for using LLM-based multi-agent systems as experimental instruments in computational narratology, together with a protocol for testing which of the resulting differences go beyond the instructions given to the models.

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APPENDIX: PROMPT TEMPLATES

All prompts are fixed templates; text in angle brackets is filled in by the framework. JSON output is additionally enforced with the JSON mode of the Ollama API. The complete source code is available in the project repository.

A.1 Dialogue extraction (Director, temperature 0).

```
Extract the direct-speech dialogue from the following literary excerpt, in order of appearance.
Rules:
1. Include only spoken utterances (no narration, inner thoughts or action descriptions).
2. If an utterance is interrupted by narration, merge the parts into one utterance.
3. "speaker": use the character's name if it is known from the excerpt; otherwise the first
     descriptive reference (e.g. "the old lady"). Use exactly the same label for the same person
     throughout. Never invent labels such as "Speaker A".
4. "speak_to": always a non-empty array of addressee labels (use the same labels as for speakers);
      infer the addressee from context if it is not explicit.
Return only JSON of the form {"dialogues": [{"speaker": "...", "speak_to": ["..."], "text":
     "..."}]}.
Excerpt:
<excerpt>
```

A.2 Role cards (Director, temperature 0).

```
You are the Director of a dialogue simulation. Based on the literary excerpt and its extracted
    dialogue, build a role card for every character who speaks.
Return only JSON of the form:
{"characters": [{"name": "...", "gender": "female|male|unknown", "personality": "...", "
    emotional_baseline": 0.0, "speech_style": "...", "description": "...", "relationships": {"
    Other name": "relation"}}],
 "context": "two or three sentences summarising the situation of the scene"}
"emotional_baseline" is a number in [-1, 1]. Use exactly these speaker labels as names: <cast
    names>.
Excerpt: <excerpt>
Extracted dialogue: <dialogue>
```

A.3 Narrative-mode instructions (inserted into the Actor prompt).

```
FIRST PERSON:  NARRATIVE MODE: FIRST PERSON. Write <name>'s turn as direct speech in <name>'s own
    voice. <name> refers to himself or herself with first-person pronouns (I, me, my). Do not add
    a narrator, quotation marks, or descriptions of <name> in the third person.
THIRD PERSON:  NARRATIVE MODE: THIRD PERSON. Do not write direct speech. Write <name>'s turn as
    narration by an external narrator, as in a novel: report what <name> says (and, if relevant,
    does or feels), naming <name> and using a reporting verb (told, asked, insisted, ...). Never
    use I, me, my, we, our, you or your, and no quotation marks. Example. Direct speech: John said
     to Mary, "I'm tired and don't want to go to the party." Third-person narration: John told
    Mary that he was tired and had no intention of going to the party.
NEUTRAL:       (no instruction)
```

A.4 Actor Agent (temperature 0.7, seeded).

```
You are role-playing the literary character <name> in a multi-character scene.
Role card:
- Name: <name>   - Personality: <personality>   - Speech style: <speech style>
- Background: <description>   - Relationships: <relationships>
- Current emotion (-1 negative .. 1 positive): <emotional baseline>
Scene: <context>
Other characters present: <other names>
Recent dialogue (oldest first):
<last k turns, one per line: "speaker (to addressees): text">
Instructions: Stay in character. Decide what <name> says next, consistent with the role card and
    the recent dialogue. Advance the scene; do not repeat earlier turns. Keep the turn to one to
    three sentences.
<narrative-mode instruction>
Return only JSON: {"intend": "speak" or "silent", "content": "<mode-specific description>", "
    speak_to": ["addressee name(s)"]}
```

When a turn violates the mode, the line "IMPORTANT: a previous answer did not follow the narrative mode (¡reason¿). Follow the NARRATIVE MODE exactly." is appended to the mode instruction for the second attempt. If the second attempt also fails, the Director rewrites the turn with the prompt: "You are the Director of a dialogue simulation and you enforce the narrative mode. Rewrite the following turn of ¡name¿ (addressed to ¡addressees¿) so that it follows the mode below. Keep its meaning, tone and length; change only the narrative form. ¡mode instruction¿ Turn: ¡text¿".

A.5 Single-prompt baseline (temperature 0.7, seeded).

```
Write the continuation of the following literary scene as a dialogue of exactly <n> turns among
    these characters: <names>.
Role cards: <one line per character>
Scene: <context>
Opening of the scene: <last five opening turns>
<mode text: first person = "Every turn must be direct speech in the speaker's own voice using
    first-person pronouns (I, me, my); no narrator and no quotation marks." / third person = "
    Every turn must be third-person narration by an external narrator reporting what the speaker
    says (by name or he/she, never 'I'), with no direct speech or quotation marks.">
Each turn is one to three sentences. Return only JSON of the form {"turns": [{"speaker": "...", "
    speak_to": ["..."], "text": "..."}]} with <n> items.
```

A.6 LLM judges (temperature 0).

```
SESSION TASK: You are an expert in literary studies evaluating a computer-generated continuation
    of a scene from "<title>" by <author>. Characters: <role cards>. Scene context: <context>.
    Continuation (<n> turns): <numbered turns>.
Rate the continuation on each criterion from 1 (very poor / very low) to 5 (excellent / very high):
     coherence (the turns follow sensibly from one another and form a meaningful exchange);
    character_consistency (each character's turns fit the character description and stay
    consistent); scene_fidelity (the continuation is plausible for this scene of the work:
    situation, relationships, period); subjectivity (how strongly the turns foreground personal
    opinions, evaluations and feelings; 1 = detached and factual, 5 = highly personal);
    emotional_intensity (1 = flat, 5 = intense). Also classify the dominant narrative form as "
    first_person_direct_speech", "third_person_narration" or "mixed". Return only JSON.
```

```
SPEAKER TASK: ... One turn of a generated dialogue is shown below. All character names were
     replaced by [NAME] and gendered pronouns by neutral ones, so you must decide from the content
     and style alone. Turn: <masked turn>
1) Which character most probably produced this turn? Answer with one name from this list: <names>.
2) Rate the subjectivity of the turn from 1 (detached, factual) to 5 (highly personal, evaluative,
      emotional). Return only JSON: {"speaker": "...", "subjectivity": 1-5}
```

A.7 Extension and improvement experiments.

```
VOICE EXEMPLARS (added to the Actor's role card): Voice examples (lines that <name> speaks in the
     source text; imitate the voice and diction, not the content):
- "<line 1>"  - "<line 2>"  - "<line 3>"
VOICE-PRESERVING THIRD PERSON (mode instruction of improvement 1): NARRATIVE MODE: THIRD PERSON,
     VOICE-PRESERVING. Do not write direct speech. Write <name>'s turn as narration by an external
     narrator, referring to <name> by name or he/she, never as "I", and use no quotation marks or
     the pronouns I, me, my, we, our, you or your. Keep <name>'s own words, idioms, tone and
     characteristic expressions as far as possible (free indirect style): report the turn in <name
     >'s voice instead of paraphrasing it in the narrator's formal language. Example. Direct speech
     : John said to Mary, "I'm dead tired and I won't go to that silly party." Voice-preserving
     narration: John was dead tired, he told Mary, and he would not go to that silly party.
SPEAK-THEN-NARRATE (improvement 2; the Actor receives the FIRST PERSON instruction, then the
     Director, temperature 0): You are the narrator of a novel. Turn the following direct speech of
      <name> (addressed to <addressees>) into third-person narration in free indirect style.
Rules: keep <name>'s own words, idioms, imagery and tone; change only what the narrative form
     requires: first-person pronouns (I, me, my, we, us, our) become <name>, he, she or they;
     second-person pronouns (you, your) become the addressee's name, he, she or they; verbs shift
     to the past tense. Do not use quotation marks or the pronouns I, me, my, we, us, our, you or
     your. Do not add commentary, interpretations or feelings that are not in the speech; at most
     add a short reporting phrase such as "he told Mary".
Example. Direct speech of John to Mary: I'm dead tired and I won't go to that silly party.
     Narration: John was dead tired, he told Mary, and he would not go to that silly party.
Speech: <the Actor's turn>
Return only JSON: {"content": "..."}
```